14. $\lim_{x\to 1^-}\left(\frac{1}{x+1}\right)\left(\frac{x+6}{x}\right)\left(\frac{3-x}{7}\right)$

15. $\lim_{h\to 0^+}\frac{\sqrt{h^2+4h+5}-\sqrt{5}}{h}$

16. $\lim_{h\to 0^-}\frac{\sqrt{6}-\sqrt{5h^2+11h+6}}{h}$

17. a. $\lim_{x\to -2^+}(x+3)\frac{|x+2|}{x+2}$ **b.** $\lim_{x\to -2^-}(x+3)\frac{|x+2|}{x+2}$

18. a. $\lim_{x\to 1^+}\frac{\sqrt{2x}(x-1)}{|x-1|}$ **b.** $\lim_{x\to 1^-}\frac{\sqrt{2x}(x-1)}{|x-1|}$

19. a. $\lim_{x\to 0^+}\frac{|\sin x|}{\sin x}$ **b.** $\lim_{x\to 0^-}\frac{|\sin x|}{\sin x}$

20. a. $\lim_{x\to 0^+}\frac{1-\cos x}{|\cos x-1|}$ **b.** $\lim_{x\to 0^-}\frac{\cos x-1}{|\cos x-1|}$

Use the graph of the greatest integer function $y=\lfloor x\rfloor$, Figure 1.10 in Section 1.1, to help you find the limits in Exercises 21 and 22.

21. a. $\lim_{\theta\to 3^+}\frac{\lfloor\theta\rfloor}{\theta}$ **b.** $\lim_{\theta\to 3^-}\frac{\lfloor\theta\rfloor}{\theta}$

22. a. $\lim_{t\to 4^+}(t-\lfloor t\rfloor)$ **b.** $\lim_{t\to 4^-}(t-\lfloor t\rfloor)$

Using $\lim_{\theta\to 0}\frac{\sin\theta}{\theta}=1$

Find the limits in Exercises 23–46.

23. $\lim_{\theta\to 0}\frac{\sin\sqrt{2\theta}}{\sqrt{2\theta}}$

24. $\lim_{t\to 0}\frac{\sin kt}{t}$ (k constant)

25. $\lim_{y\to 0}\frac{\sin 3y}{4y}$

26. $\lim_{h\to 0^-}\frac{h}{\sin 3h}$

27. $\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{\tan 2x}{x}$

28. $\lim_{t\to 0}\frac{2t}{\tan t}$

29. $\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{x\csc 2x}{\cos 5x}$

30. $\lim_{x\to 0}6x^2(\cot x)(\csc 2x)$

31. $\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{x+x\cos x}{\sin x\cos x}$

32. $\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{x^2-x+\sin x}{2x}$

33. $\lim_{\theta\to 0}\frac{1-\cos\theta}{\sin 2\theta}$

34. $\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{x-x\cos x}{\sin^2 3x}$

35. $\lim_{t\to 0}\frac{\sin(1-\cos t)}{1-\cos t}$

36. $\lim_{h\to 0}\frac{\sin(\sin h)}{\sin h}$

37. $\lim_{\theta\to 0}\frac{\sin\theta}{\sin 2\theta}$

38. $\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{\sin 5x}{\sin 4x}$

39. $\lim_{\theta\to 0}\theta\cos\theta$

40. $\lim_{\theta\to 0}\sin\theta\cot 2\theta$

41. $\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{\tan 3x}{\sin 8x}$

42. $\lim_{y\to 0}\frac{\sin 3y\cot 5y}{y\cot 4y}$

43. $\lim_{\theta\to 0}\frac{\tan\theta}{\theta^2\cot 3\theta}$

44. $\lim_{\theta\to 0}\frac{\theta\cot 4\theta}{\sin^2\theta\cot^2 2\theta}$

45. $\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{1-\cos 3x}{2x}$

46. $\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{\cos^2 x-\cos x}{x^2}$

Theory and Examples

47. Once you know $\lim_{x\to a^+}f(x)$ and $\lim_{x\to a^-}f(x)$ at an interior point of the domain of f, do you then know $\lim_{x\to a}f(x)$? Give reasons for your answer.

48. If you know that $\lim_{x\to c}f(x)$ exists, can you find its value by calculating $\lim_{x\to c^+}f(x)$? Give reasons for your answer.

49. Suppose that f is an odd function of x. Does knowing that $\lim_{x\to 0^+}f(x)=3$ tell you anything about $\lim_{x\to 0^-}f(x)$? Give reasons for your answer.

50. Suppose that f is an even function of x. Does knowing that $\lim_{x\to 2^-}f(x)=7$ tell you anything about either $\lim_{x\to -2^-}f(x)$ or $\lim_{x\to -2^+}f(x)$? Give reasons for your answer.

Formal Definitions of One-Sided Limits

51. Given $\varepsilon>0$, find an interval $I=(5,5+\delta)$, $\delta>0$, such that if x lies in I, then $\sqrt{x-5}<\varepsilon$. What limit is being verified and what is its value?

52. Given $\varepsilon>0$, find an interval $I=(4-\delta,4)$, $\delta>0$, such that if x lies in I, then $\sqrt{4-x}<\varepsilon$. What limit is being verified and what is its value?

Use the definitions of right-hand and left-hand limits to prove the limit statements in Exercises 53 and 54.

53. $\lim_{x\to 0^-}\frac{x}{|x|}=-1$

54. $\lim_{x\to 2^+}\frac{x-2}{|x-2|}=1$

55. Greatest integer function Find **(a)** $\lim_{x\to 400^+}\lfloor x\rfloor$ and **(b)** $\lim_{x\to 400^-}\lfloor x\rfloor$; then use limit definitions to verify your findings. **(c)** Based on your conclusions in parts (a) and (b), can you say anything about $\lim_{x\to 400}\lfloor x\rfloor$? Give reasons for your answer.

56. One-sided limits Let $f(x)=\begin{cases}x^2\sin(1/x), & x<0\\ \sqrt{x}, & x>0.\end{cases}$

Find **(a)** $\lim_{x\to 0^+}f(x)$ and **(b)** $\lim_{x\to 0^-}f(x)$; then use limit definitions to verify your findings. **(c)** Based on your conclusions in parts (a) and (b), can you say anything about $\lim_{x\to 0}f(x)$? Give reasons for your answer.

2.5 Continuity

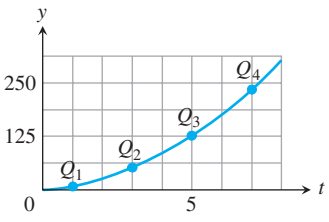


FIGURE 2.34 Connecting plotted points.

When we plot function values generated in a laboratory or collected in the field, we often connect the plotted points with an unbroken curve to show what the function's values are likely to have been at the points we did not measure (Figure 2.34). In doing so, we are assuming that we are working with a *continuous function*, so its outputs vary regularly and consistently with the inputs, and do not jump abruptly from one value to another without taking on the values in between. Intuitively, any function $y=f(x)$ whose graph can be sketched over its domain in one unbroken motion is an example of a continuous function. Such functions play an important role in the study of calculus and its applications.

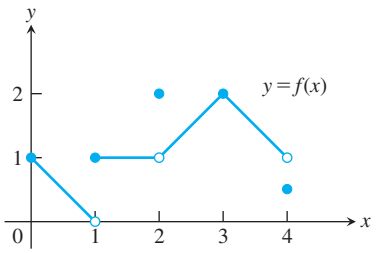


FIGURE 2.35 The function is not continuous at $x = 1$, $x = 2$, and $x = 4$ (Example 1).

Continuity at a Point

To understand continuity, it helps to consider a function like that in Figure 2.35, whose limits we investigated in Example 2 in the last section.

EXAMPLE 1 At which numbers does the function f in Figure 2.35 appear to be not continuous? Explain why. What occurs at other numbers in the domain?

Solution First we observe that the domain of the function is the closed interval $[0, 4]$, so we will be considering the numbers x within that interval. From the figure, we notice right away that there are breaks in the graph at the numbers $x = 1$, $x = 2$, and $x = 4$. The break at $x = 1$ appears as a jump, which we identify later as a "jump discontinuity." The break at $x = 2$ is called a "removable discontinuity" since by changing the function definition at that one point, we can create a new function that is continuous at $x = 2$. Similarly $x = 4$ is a removable discontinuity.

Numbers at which the graph of f has breaks:

At the interior point $x = 1$, the function fails to have a limit. It does have both a left-hand limit, $\lim_{x\to 1^-} f(x) = 0$, as well as a right-hand limit, $\lim_{x\to 1^+} f(x) = 1$, but the limit values are different, resulting in a jump in the graph. The function is not continuous at $x = 1$. However the function value $f(1) = 1$ is equal to the limit from the right, so the function *is* continuous from the right at $x = 1$.

At $x = 2$, the function does have a limit, $\lim_{x\to 2} f(x) = 1$, but the value of the function is $f(2) = 2$. The limit and function values are not the same, so there is a break in the graph and f is not continuous at $x = 2$.

At $x = 4$, the function does have a left-hand limit at this right endpoint, $\lim_{x\to 4^-} f(x) = 1$, but again the value of the function $f(4) = \frac{1}{2}$ differs from the value of the limit. We see again a break in the graph of the function at this endpoint and the function is not continuous from the left.

Numbers at which the graph of f has no breaks:

At $x = 3$, the function has a limit, $\lim_{x\to 3} f(x) = 2$. Moreover, the limit is the same value as the function there, $f(3) = 2$. The function is continuous at $x = 3$.

At $x = 0$, the function has a right-hand limit at this left endpoint, $\lim_{x\to 0^+} f(x) = 1$, and the value of the function is the same, $f(0) = 1$. The function is continuous from the right at $x = 0$. Because $x = 0$ is a left endpoint of the function's domain, we have that $\lim_{x\to 0} f(x) = 1$ and so f is continuous at $x = 0$.

At all other numbers $x = c$ in the domain, the function has a limit equal to the value of the function, so $\lim_{x\to c} f(x) = f(c)$. For example, $\lim_{x\to 5/2} f(x) = f\left(\frac{5}{2}\right) = \frac{3}{2}$. No breaks appear in the graph of the function at any of these numbers and the function is continuous at each of them. ■

The following definitions capture the continuity ideas we observed in Example 1.

DEFINITIONS Let c be a real number that is either an interior point or an endpoint of an interval in the domain of f.

The function f is **continuous at c** if

$$\lim_{x\to c} f(x) = f(c).$$

The function f is **right-continuous at c (or continuous from the right)** if

$$\lim_{x\to c^+} f(x) = f(c).$$

The function f is **left-continuous at c (or continuous from the left)** if

$$\lim_{x\to c^-} f(x) = f(c).$$

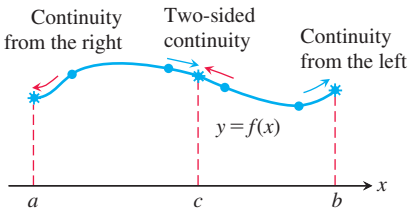


FIGURE 2.36 Continuity at points a, b, and c.

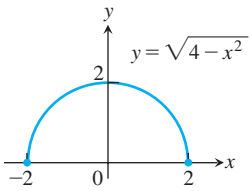


FIGURE 2.37 A function that is continuous over its domain (Example 2).

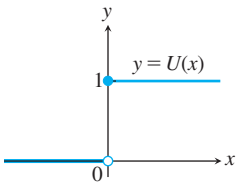


FIGURE 2.38 A function that has a jump discontinuity at the origin (Example 3).

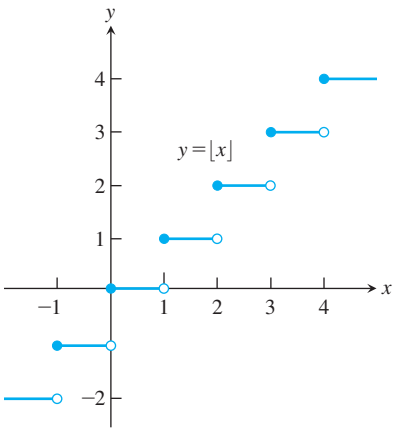


FIGURE 2.39 The greatest integer function is continuous at every noninteger point. It is right-continuous, but not left-continuous, at every integer point (Example 4).

The function f in Example 1 is continuous at every x in $[0, 4]$ except $x = 1, 2$, and 4. It is right-continuous but not left-continuous at $x = 1$, neither right- nor left-continuous at $x = 2$, and not left-continuous at $x = 4$.

From Theorem 6, it follows immediately that a function f is continuous at an *interior* point c of an interval in its domain if and only if it is both right-continuous and left-continuous at c (Figure 2.36). We say that a function is **continuous over a closed interval** $[a, b]$ if it is right-continuous at a, left-continuous at b, and continuous at all interior points of the interval. This definition applies to the infinite closed intervals $[a, \infty)$ and $(-\infty, b]$ as well, but only one endpoint is involved. If a function is not continuous at point c of its domain, we say that f is **discontinuous at c**, and that f has a discontinuity at c. Note that a function f can be continuous, right-continuous, or left-continuous only at a point c for which $f(c)$ is defined.

EXAMPLE 2 The function $f(x) = \sqrt{4 - x^2}$ is continuous over its domain $[-2, 2]$ (Figure 2.37). It is right-continuous at $x = -2$, and left-continuous at $x = 2$. ■

EXAMPLE 3 The unit step function $U(x)$, graphed in Figure 2.38, is right-continuous at $x = 0$, but is neither left-continuous nor continuous there. It has a jump discontinuity at $x = 0$. ■

At an interior point or an endpoint of an interval in its domain, a function is continuous at points where it passes the following test.

Continuity Test

A function $f(x)$ is continuous at a point $x = c$ if and only if it meets the following three conditions.

1. $f(c)$ exists	(c lies in the domain of f).
2. $\lim_{x \to c} f(x)$ exists	(f has a limit as $x \to c$).
3. $\lim_{x \to c} f(x) = f(c)$	(the limit equals the function value).

For one-sided continuity, the limits in parts 2 and 3 of the test should be replaced by the appropriate one-sided limits.

EXAMPLE 4 The function $y = \lfloor x \rfloor$ introduced in Section 1.1 is graphed in Figure 2.39. It is discontinuous at every integer n, because the left-hand and right-hand limits are not equal as $x \to n$:

$$\lim_{x \to n^-} \lfloor x \rfloor = n - 1 \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{x \to n^+} \lfloor x \rfloor = n.$$

Since $\lfloor n \rfloor = n$, the greatest integer function is right-continuous at every integer n (but not left-continuous).

The greatest integer function is continuous at every real number other than the integers. For example,

$$\lim_{x \to 1.5} \lfloor x \rfloor = 1 = \lfloor 1.5 \rfloor.$$

In general, if $n - 1 < c < n$, n an integer, then

$$\lim_{x \to c} \lfloor x \rfloor = n - 1 = \lfloor c \rfloor.$$ ■

Figure 2.40 displays several common ways in which a function can fail to be continuous. The function in Figure 2.40a is continuous at $x = 0$. The function in Figure 2.40b does not contain $x = 0$ in its domain. It would be continuous if its domain were extended

so that $f(0) = 1$. The function in Figure 2.40c would be continuous if $f(0)$ were 1 instead of 2. The discontinuity in Figure 2.40c is **removable**. The function has a limit as $x \to 0$, and we can remove the discontinuity by setting $f(0)$ equal to this limit.

The discontinuities in Figure 2.40d through f are more serious: $\lim_{x\to 0} f(x)$ does not exist, and there is no way to improve the situation by appropriately defining f at 0. The step function in Figure 2.40d has a **jump discontinuity**: The one-sided limits exist but have different values. The function $f(x) = 1/x^2$ in Figure 2.40e has an **infinite discontinuity**. The function in Figure 2.40f has an **oscillating discontinuity**: It oscillates so much that its values approach each number in $[-1, 1]$ as $x \to 0$. Since it does not approach a single number, it does not have a limit as x approaches 0.

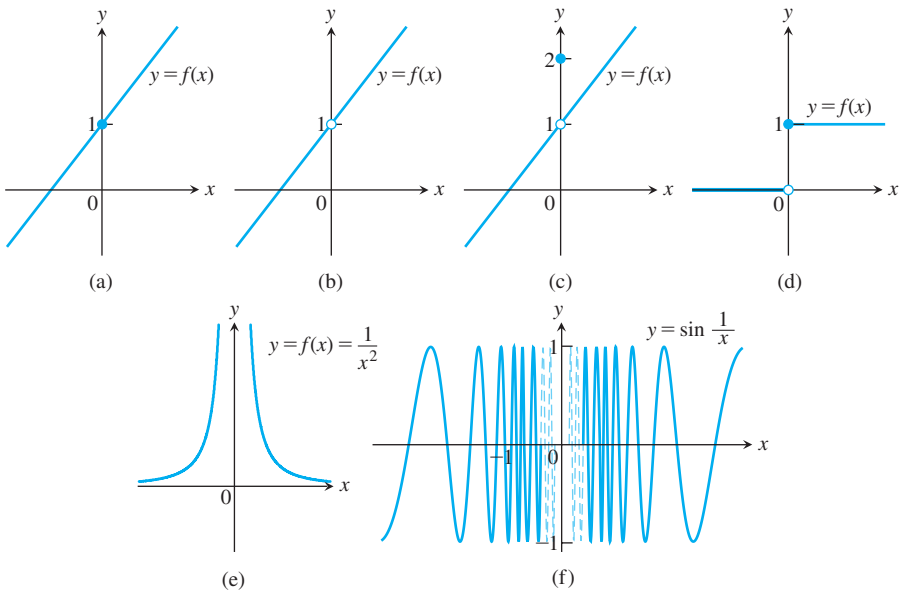


FIGURE 2.40 The function in (a) is continuous at $x = 0$; the functions in (b) through (f) are not.

Continuous Functions

We now describe the continuity behavior of a function throughout its entire domain, not only at a single point. We define a **continuous function** to be one that is continuous at every point in its domain. This is a property of the *function*. A function always has a specified domain, so if we change the domain then we change the function, and this may change its continuity property as well. If a function is discontinuous at one or more points of its domain, we say it is a **discontinuous** function.

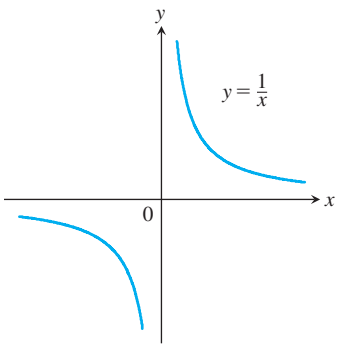


FIGURE 2.41 The function $f(x) = 1/x$ is continuous over its natural domain. It is not defined at the origin, so it is not continuous on any interval containing $x = 0$ (Example 5).

EXAMPLE 5

(a) The function $f(x) = 1/x$ (Figure 2.41) is a continuous function because it is continuous at every point of its domain. The point $x = 0$ is not in the domain of the function f, so f is not continuous on any interval containing $x = 0$. Moreover, there is no way to extend f to a new function that is defined and continuous at $x = 0$. The function f does not have a removable discontinuity at $x = 0$.

(b) The identity function $f(x) = x$ and constant functions are continuous everywhere by Example 3, Section 2.3. ■

Algebraic combinations of continuous functions are continuous wherever they are defined.

THEOREM 8—Properties of Continuous Functions

If the functions f and g are continuous at $x = c$, then the following algebraic combinations are continuous at $x = c$.

1.	*Sums:*	$f + g$
2.	*Differences:*	$f - g$
3.	*Constant multiples:*	$k \cdot f$, for any number k
4.	*Products:*	$f \cdot g$
5.	*Quotients:*	f/g, provided $g(c) \neq 0$
6.	*Powers:*	f^n, n a positive integer
7.	*Roots:*	$\sqrt[n]{f}$, provided it is defined on an interval containing c, where n is a positive integer

Most of the results in Theorem 8 follow from the limit rules in Theorem 1, Section 2.2. For instance, to prove the sum property we have

$$\begin{aligned}
\lim_{x\to c}(f + g)(x) &= \lim_{x\to c}(f(x) + g(x)) \\
&= \lim_{x\to c} f(x) + \lim_{x\to c} g(x) && \text{Sum Rule, Theorem 1} \\
&= f(c) + g(c) && \text{Continuity of } f, g \text{ at } c \\
&= (f + g)(c).
\end{aligned}$$

This shows that $f + g$ is continuous.

EXAMPLE 6

(a) Every polynomial $P(x) = a_n x^n + a_{n-1}x^{n-1} + \cdots + a_0$ is continuous because $\lim_{x\to c} P(x) = P(c)$ by Theorem 2, Section 2.2.

(b) If $P(x)$ and $Q(x)$ are polynomials, then the rational function $P(x)/Q(x)$ is continuous wherever it is defined ($Q(c) \neq 0$) by Theorem 3, Section 2.2. ■

EXAMPLE 7 The function $f(x) = |x|$ is continuous. If $x > 0$, we have $f(x) = x$, a polynomial. If $x < 0$, we have $f(x) = -x$, another polynomial. Finally, at the origin, $\lim_{x\to 0} |x| = 0 = |0|$. ■

The functions $y = \sin x$ and $y = \cos x$ are continuous at $x = 0$ by Example 11 of Section 2.2. Both functions are continuous everywhere (see Exercise 64). It follows from Theorem 8 that all six trigonometric functions are continuous wherever they are defined. For example, $y = \tan x$ is continuous on $\cdots \cup (-\pi/2, \pi/2) \cup (\pi/2, 3\pi/2) \cup \cdots$.

Continuity of Compositions of Functions

Functions obtained by composing continuous functions are continuous. If $f(x)$ is continuous at $x = c$ and $g(x)$ is continuous at $x = f(c)$, then $g \circ f$ is also continuous at $x = c$ (Figure 2.42). In this case, the limit of $g \circ f$ as $x \to c$ is $g(f(c))$.

THEOREM 9—Compositions of Continuous Functions

If f is continuous at c and g is continuous at $f(c)$, then the composition $g \circ f$ is continuous at c.

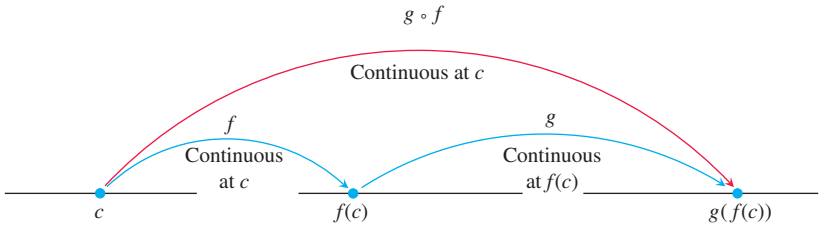


FIGURE 2.42 Compositions of continuous functions are continuous.

Intuitively, Theorem 9 is reasonable because if x is close to c, then $f(x)$ is close to $f(c)$, and since g is continuous at $f(c)$, it follows that $g(f(x))$ is close to $g(f(c))$.

The continuity of compositions holds for any finite number of compositions of functions. The only requirement is that each function be continuous where it is applied. An outline of a proof of Theorem 9 is given in Exercise 6 in Appendix 4.

EXAMPLE 8 Show that the following functions are continuous on their natural domains.

(a) $y = \sqrt{x^2 - 2x - 5}$ **(b)** $y = \dfrac{x^{2/3}}{1 + x^4}$

(c) $y = \left|\dfrac{x - 2}{x^2 - 2}\right|$ **(d)** $y = \left|\dfrac{x \sin x}{x^2 + 2}\right|$

Solution

(a) The square root function is continuous on $[0, \infty)$ because it is a root of the continuous identity function $f(x) = x$ (Part 7, Theorem 8). The given function is then the composition of the polynomial $f(x) = x^2 - 2x - 5$ with the square root function $g(t) = \sqrt{t}$, and is continuous on its natural domain.

(b) The numerator is the cube root of the identity function squared; the denominator is an everywhere-positive polynomial. Therefore, the quotient is continuous.

(c) The quotient $(x - 2)/(x^2 - 2)$ is continuous for all $x \neq \pm\sqrt{2}$, and the function is the composition of this quotient with the continuous absolute value function (Example 7).

(d) Because the sine function is everywhere-continuous (Exercise 64), the numerator term $x \sin x$ is the product of continuous functions, and the denominator term $x^2 + 2$ is an everywhere-positive polynomial. The given function is the composite of a quotient of continuous functions with the continuous absolute value function (Figure 2.43). ■

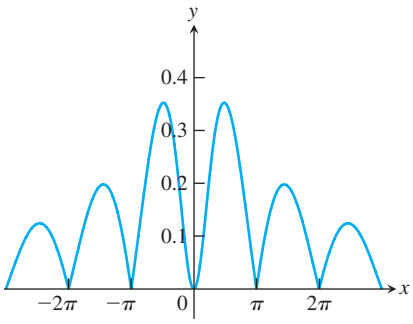


FIGURE 2.43 The graph suggests that $y = |(x \sin x)/(x^2 + 2)|$ is continuous (Example 8d).

Theorem 9 is actually a consequence of a more general result, which we now prove. It states that if the limit of $f(x)$ as x approaches c is equal to b, then the limit of the composition function $g \circ f$ as x approaches c is equal to $g(b)$.

THEOREM 10—Limits of Continuous Functions
If $\lim_{x \to c} f(x) = b$ and g is continuous at the point b, then

$$\lim_{x \to c} g(f(x)) = g(b).$$

Proof Let $\varepsilon > 0$ be given. Since g is continuous at b, there exists a number $\delta_1 > 0$ such that

$$|g(y) - g(b)| < \varepsilon \quad \text{whenever} \quad 0 < |y - b| < \delta_1. \qquad \lim_{y \to b} g(y) = g(b) \text{ since } g \text{ is continuous at } y = b.$$

Since $\lim_{x \to c} f(x) = b$, there exists a $\delta > 0$ such that

$$|f(x) - b| < \delta_1 \quad \text{whenever} \quad 0 < |x - c| < \delta. \qquad \text{Definition of } \lim_{x \to c} f(x) = b$$

If we let $y = f(x)$, we then have that

$$|y - b| < \delta_1 \quad \text{whenever} \quad 0 < |x - c| < \delta,$$

which implies from the first statement that $|g(y) - g(b)| = |g(f(x)) - g(b)| < \varepsilon$ whenever $0 < |x - c| < \delta$. From the definition of limit, it follows that $\lim_{x \to c} g(f(x)) = g(b)$. This gives the proof for the case where c is an interior point of the domain of f. The case where c is an endpoint of the domain is entirely similar, using an appropriate one-sided limit in place of a two-sided limit. ■

EXAMPLE 9 Applying Theorem 10, we have

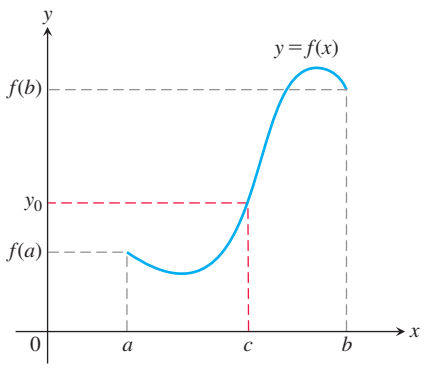
$$\lim_{x \to \pi/2} \cos\left(2x + \sin\left(\frac{3\pi}{2} + x\right)\right) = \cos\left(\lim_{x \to \pi/2} 2x + \lim_{x \to \pi/2} \sin\left(\frac{3\pi}{2} + x\right)\right)$$
$$= \cos(\pi + \sin 2\pi) = \cos \pi = -1.$$

■

Intermediate Value Theorem for Continuous Functions

A function is said to have the **Intermediate Value Property** if whenever it takes on two values, it also takes on all the values in between.

THEOREM 11—The Intermediate Value Theorem for Continuous Functions
If f is a continuous function on a closed interval $[a, b]$, and if y_0 is any value between $f(a)$ and $f(b)$, then $y_0 = f(c)$ for some c in $[a, b]$.



Theorem 11 says that continuous functions over *finite closed* intervals have the Intermediate Value Property. Geometrically, the Intermediate Value Theorem says that any horizontal line $y = y_0$ crossing the y-axis between the numbers $f(a)$ and $f(b)$ will cross the curve $y = f(x)$ at least once over the interval $[a, b]$.

The proof of the Intermediate Value Theorem depends on the completeness property of the real number system. The completeness property implies that the real numbers have no holes or gaps. In contrast, the rational numbers do not satisfy the completeness property,

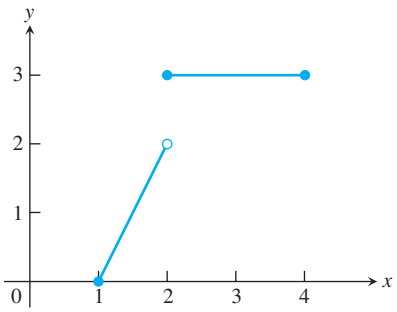


FIGURE 2.44 The function $f(x) = \begin{cases} 2x - 2, & 1 \le x < 2 \\ 3, & 2 \le x \le 4 \end{cases}$ does not take on all values between $f(1) = 0$ and $f(4) = 3$; it misses all the values between 2 and 3.

and a function defined only on the rationals would not satisfy the Intermediate Value Theorem. See Appendix 7 for a discussion and examples.

The continuity of f on the interval is essential to Theorem 11. If f fails to be continuous at even one point of the interval, the theorem's conclusion may fail, as it does for the function graphed in Figure 2.44 (choose y_0 as any number between 2 and 3).

A Consequence for Graphing: Connectedness Theorem 11 implies that the graph of a function that is continuous on an interval cannot have any breaks over the interval. It will be **connected**—a single, unbroken curve. It will not have jumps such as the ones found in the graph of the greatest integer function (Figure 2.39), or separate branches as found in the graph of $1/x$ (Figure 2.41).

A Consequence for Root Finding We call a solution of the equation $f(x) = 0$ a **root** of the equation or **zero** of the function f. The Intermediate Value Theorem tells us that if f is continuous, then any interval on which f changes sign contains a zero of the function. Somewhere between a point where a continuous function is positive and a second point where it is negative, the function must be equal to zero.

In practical terms, when we see the graph of a continuous function cross the horizontal axis on a computer screen, we know it is not stepping across. There really is a point where the function's value is zero.

EXAMPLE 10 Show that there is a root of the equation $x^3 - x - 1 = 0$ between 1 and 2.

Solution Let $f(x) = x^3 - x - 1$. Since $f(1) = 1 - 1 - 1 = -1 < 0$ and $f(2) = 2^3 - 2 - 1 = 5 > 0$, we see that $y_0 = 0$ is a value between $f(1)$ and $f(2)$. Since f is a polynomial, it is continuous, and the Intermediate Value Theorem says there is a zero of f between 1 and 2. Figure 2.45 shows the result of zooming in to locate the root near $x = 1.32$. ■

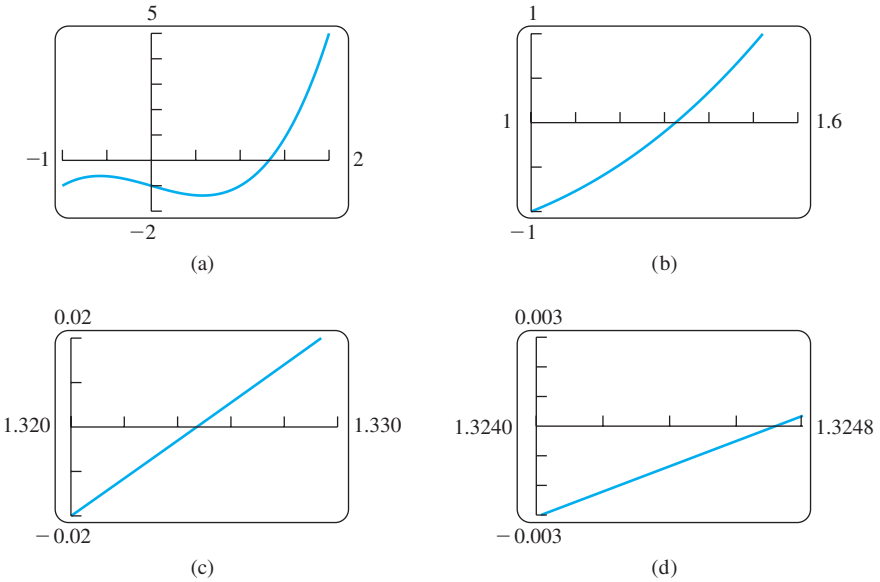


FIGURE 2.45 Zooming in on a zero of the function $f(x) = x^3 - x - 1$. The zero is near $x = 1.3247$ (Example 10).

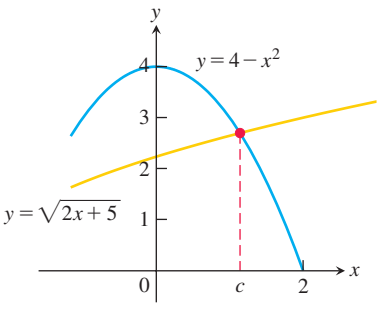


FIGURE 2.46 The curves $y = \sqrt{2x + 5}$ and $y = 4 - x^2$ have the same value at $x = c$ where $\sqrt{2x + 5} + x^2 - 4 = 0$ (Example 11).

EXAMPLE 11 Use the Intermediate Value Theorem to prove that the equation

$$\sqrt{2x + 5} = 4 - x^2$$

has a solution (Figure 2.46).

Solution We rewrite the equation as

$$\sqrt{2x + 5} + x^2 - 4 = 0,$$

and set $f(x) = \sqrt{2x + 5} + x^2 - 4$. Now $g(x) = \sqrt{2x + 5}$ is continuous on the interval $[-5/2, \infty)$ since it is formed as the composition of two continuous functions, the square root function with the nonnegative linear function $y = 2x + 5$. Then f is the sum of the function g and the quadratic function $y = x^2 - 4$, and the quadratic function is continuous for all values of x. It follows that $f(x) = \sqrt{2x + 5} + x^2 - 4$ is continuous on the interval $[-5/2, \infty)$. By trial and error, we find the function values $f(0) = \sqrt{5} - 4 \approx -1.76$ and $f(2) = \sqrt{9} = 3$. Note that f is continuous on the finite closed interval $[0, 2] \subset [-5/2, \infty)$. Since the value $y_0 = 0$ is between the numbers $f(0) = -1.76$ and $f(2) = 3$, by the Intermediate Value Theorem there is a number $c \in [0, 2]$ such that $f(c) = 0$. The number c solves the original equation. ■

Continuous Extension to a Point

Sometimes the formula that describes a function f does not make sense at a point $x = c$. It might nevertheless be possible to extend the domain of f, to include $x = c$, creating a new function that is continuous at $x = c$. For example, the function $y = f(x) = (\sin x)/x$ is continuous at every point except $x = 0$, since $x = 0$ is not in its domain. Since $y = (\sin x)/x$ has a finite limit as $x \to 0$ (Theorem 7), we can extend the function's domain to include the point $x = 0$ in such a way that the extended function is continuous at $x = 0$. We define the new function

$$F(x) = \begin{cases} \dfrac{\sin x}{x}, & x \neq 0 \\ 1, & x = 0. \end{cases}$$

Same as original function for $x \neq 0$

Value at domain point $x = 0$

The new function $F(x)$ is continuous at $x = 0$ because

$$\lim_{x \to 0} \frac{\sin x}{x} = F(0),$$

so it meets the requirements for continuity (Figure 2.47).

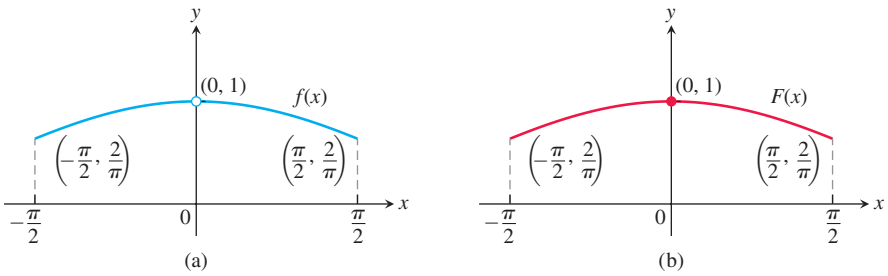


FIGURE 2.47 (a) The graph of $f(x) = (\sin x)/x$ for $-\pi/2 \le x \le \pi/2$ does not include the point (0, 1) because the function is not defined at $x = 0$. (b) We can extend the domain to include $x = 0$ by defining the new function $F(x)$ with $F(0) = 1$ and $F(x) = f(x)$ everywhere else. Note that $F(0) = \lim_{x \to 0} f(x)$ and $F(x)$ is a continuous function at $x = 0$.

More generally, a function (such as a rational function) may have a limit at a point where it is not defined. If $f(c)$ is not defined, but $\lim_{x \to c} f(x) = L$ exists, we can define a new function $F(x)$ by the rule

$$F(x) = \begin{cases} f(x), & \text{if } x \text{ is in the domain of } f \\ L, & \text{if } x = c. \end{cases}$$

The function F is continuous at $x = c$. It is called the **continuous extension of f** to $x = c$. For rational functions f, continuous extensions are often found by canceling common factors in the numerator and denominator.

EXAMPLE 12 Show that

$$f(x) = \frac{x^2 + x - 6}{x^2 - 4}, \quad x \neq 2$$

has a continuous extension to $x = 2$, and find that extension.

Solution Although $f(2)$ is not defined, if $x \neq 2$ we have

$$f(x) = \frac{x^2 + x - 6}{x^2 - 4} = \frac{(x - 2)(x + 3)}{(x - 2)(x + 2)} = \frac{x + 3}{x + 2}.$$

The new function

$$F(x) = \frac{x + 3}{x + 2}$$

is equal to $f(x)$ for $x \neq 2$, but is continuous at $x = 2$, having there the value of $5/4$. Thus F is the continuous extension of f to $x = 2$, and

$$\lim_{x \to 2} \frac{x^2 + x - 6}{x^2 - 4} = \lim_{x \to 2} f(x) = \frac{5}{4}.$$

The graph of f is shown in Figure 2.48. The continuous extension F has the same graph except with no hole at $(2, 5/4)$. Effectively, F is the function f extended across the missing domain point at $x = 2$ so as to give a continuous function over the larger domain. ■

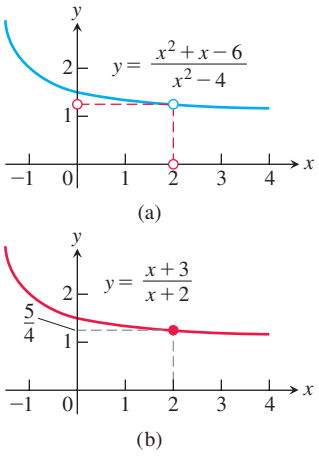


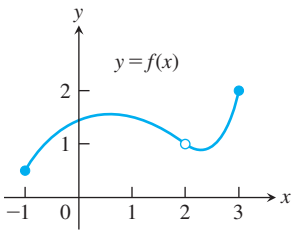
FIGURE 2.48 (a) The graph of $f(x)$ and (b) the graph of its continuous extension $F(x)$ (Example 12).

EXERCISES 2.5

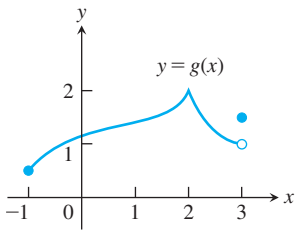
Continuity from Graphs

In Exercises 1–4, say whether the function graphed is continuous on $[-1, 3]$. If not, where does it fail to be continuous and why?

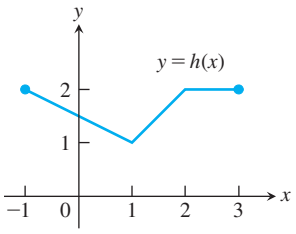
1.



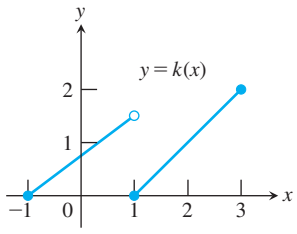
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3.



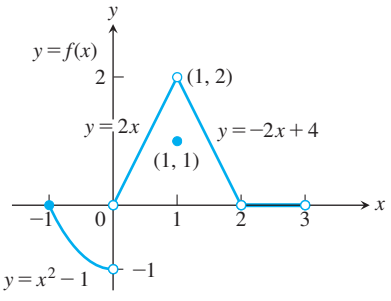
4.



Exercises 5–10 refer to the function

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2 - 1, & -1 \leq x < 0 \\ 2x, & 0 < x < 1 \\ 1, & x = 1 \\ -2x + 4, & 1 < x < 2 \\ 0, & 2 < x < 3 \end{cases}$$

graphed in the accompanying figure.



The graph for Exercises 5–10.

5. **a.** Does $f(-1)$ exist?
b. Does $\lim_{x\to -1^+} f(x)$ exist?
c. Does $\lim_{x\to -1^+} f(x) = f(-1)$?
d. Is f continuous at $x = -1$?

6. **a.** Does $f(1)$ exist?
b. Does $\lim_{x\to 1} f(x)$ exist?
c. Does $\lim_{x\to 1} f(x) = f(1)$?
d. Is f continuous at $x = 1$?

7. **a.** Is f defined at $x = 2$? (Look at the definition of f.)
b. Is f continuous at $x = 2$?

8. At what values of x is f continuous?

9. What value should be assigned to $f(2)$ to make the extended function continuous at $x = 2$?

10. To what new value should $f(1)$ be changed to remove the discontinuity?

Applying the Continuity Test

At which points do the functions in Exercises 11 and 12 fail to be continuous? At which points, if any, are the discontinuities removable? Not removable? Give reasons for your answers.

11. Exercise 1, Section 2.4

12. Exercise 2, Section 2.4

At what points are the functions in Exercises 13–30 continuous?

13. $y = \dfrac{1}{x-2} - 3x$

14. $y = \dfrac{1}{(x+2)^2} + 4$

15. $y = \dfrac{x+1}{x^2 - 4x + 3}$

16. $y = \dfrac{x+3}{x^2 - 3x - 10}$

17. $y = |x-1| + \sin x$

18. $y = \dfrac{1}{|x|+1} - \dfrac{x^2}{2}$

19. $y = \dfrac{\cos x}{x}$

20. $y = \dfrac{x+2}{\cos x}$

21. $y = \csc 2x$

22. $y = \tan \dfrac{\pi x}{2}$

23. $y = \dfrac{x \tan x}{x^2+1}$

24. $y = \dfrac{\sqrt{x^4+1}}{1+\sin^2 x}$

25. $y = \sqrt{2x+3}$

26. $y = \sqrt[4]{3x-1}$

27. $y = (2x-1)^{1/3}$

28. $y = (2-x)^{1/5}$

29. $g(x) = \begin{cases} \dfrac{x^2 - x - 6}{x-3}, & x \neq 3 \\ 5, & x = 3 \end{cases}$

30. $f(x) = \begin{cases} \dfrac{x^3 - 8}{x^2 - 4}, & x \neq 2, x \neq -2 \\ 3, & x = 2 \\ 4, & x = -2 \end{cases}$

Limits Involving Trigonometric Functions

Find the limits in Exercises 31–36. Are the functions continuous at the point being approached?

31. $\lim_{x\to\pi} \sin(x - \sin x)$

32. $\lim_{t\to 0} \sin\left(\dfrac{\pi}{2}\cos(\tan t)\right)$

33. $\lim_{y\to 1} \sec(y \sec^2 y - \tan^2 y - 1)$

34. $\lim_{x\to 0} \tan\left(\dfrac{\pi}{4}\cos(\sin x^{1/3})\right)$

35. $\lim_{t\to 0} \cos\left(\dfrac{\pi}{\sqrt{19 - 3\sec 2t}}\right)$

36. $\lim_{x\to \pi/6} \sqrt{\csc^2 x + 5\sqrt{3}\tan x}$

Continuous Extensions

37. Define $g(3)$ in a way that extends $g(x) = (x^2 - 9)/(x-3)$ to be continuous at $x = 3$.

38. Define $h(2)$ in a way that extends $h(t) = (t^2 + 3t - 10)/(t-2)$ to be continuous at $t = 2$.

39. Define $f(1)$ in a way that extends $f(s) = (s^3 - 1)/(s^2 - 1)$ to be continuous at $s = 1$.

40. Define $g(4)$ in a way that extends

$$g(x) = (x^2 - 16)/(x^2 - 3x - 4)$$

to be continuous at $x = 4$.

41. For what value of a is

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2 - 1, & x < 3 \\ 2ax, & x \geq 3 \end{cases}$$

continuous at every x?

42. For what value of b is

$$g(x) = \begin{cases} x, & x < -2 \\ bx^2, & x \geq -2 \end{cases}$$

continuous at every x?

43. For what values of a is

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} a^2x - 2a, & x \geq 2 \\ 12, & x < 2 \end{cases}$$

continuous at every x?

44. For what value of b is

$$g(x) = \begin{cases} \dfrac{x-b}{b+1}, & x < 0 \\ x^2 + b, & x > 0 \end{cases}$$

continuous at every x?

45. For what values of a and b is

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} -2, & x \leq -1 \\ ax - b, & -1 < x < 1 \\ 3, & x \geq 1 \end{cases}$$

continuous at every x?

46. For what values of a and b is

$$g(x) = \begin{cases} ax + 2b, & x \leq 0 \\ x^2 + 3a - b, & 0 < x \leq 2 \\ 3x - 5, & x > 2 \end{cases}$$

continuous at every x?

Theory and Examples

47. A continuous function $y = f(x)$ is known to be negative at $x = 0$ and positive at $x = 1$. Why does the equation $f(x) = 0$ have at least one solution between $x = 0$ and $x = 1$? Illustrate with a sketch.